

# Automatic Brain White Matter Hyperintensities Segmentation with Swin U-Net

José A. Viteri 

*Electrical and Computer Science Engineering Depart.*  
*Escuela Superior Politécnica del Litoral - ESPOL University*  
Guayaquil, Ecuador  
javiteri@espol.edu.ec

Bryan V. Piguave 

*Natural Science and Math Depart.*  
*Escuela Superior Politécnica del Litoral - ESPOL University*  
Guayaquil, Ecuador  
bpiguave@espol.edu.ec

Enrique Pelaez 

*Electrical and Computer Science Engineering Depart.*  
*Escuela Superior Politécnica del Litoral - ESPOL University*  
Guayaquil, Ecuador  
epelaez@espol.edu.ec

Francis R. Loayza 

*Mechanical and Production Science Engineering Depart.*  
*Escuela Superior Politécnica del Litoral - ESPOL University*  
Guayaquil, Ecuador  
floayza@espol.edu.ec

**Abstract**—This work proposes an automatic segmentation approach to detect White Matter Hyperintensities (WMH) using Fluid Attenuated Inversion Recovery (FLAIR) and the corresponding T1 weighted MRI images. In this work, we used the Swin U-Net architecture based on Transformers and compared its performance with two currently reported CNN U-Nets architectures. Sixty pairs of images and their corresponding ground truth labels were used from the MICCAI challenge. The following metrics were obtained: Dice similarity score of 0.80; lesion F1 score of 0.63; Hausdorff distance of 3.16 mm; and, 16.93 average volume difference, locating the Swin U-Net second in the ranking of the tested algorithms. However, the computational resources needed to process the imaging data were the lowest compared to the previous U-Nets. Therefore, the Swin U-Net architecture shows potential to become a promising and fast tool for segmenting medical images.

**Keywords**—Deep Learning, Segmentation, WMH, Swin-Transformer

## I. INTRODUCTION

White Matter Hyperintensities (WMH) are brain lesions regions which are hyperintense on T2-weighted Fluid Attenuated Inversion Recovery (FLAIR) magnetic resonance images (MRI). Small vessel disorders, strokes and depression are closely linked to WMH, and neurodegenerative diseases [1]. WMH has been extensively analysed, given its appearance in normal human ageing. A hyperintense signal is commonly referred to as brain tissue related to cerebrovascular and cardiovascular diseases [2], [3], or autoimmune and psychiatric disorders [4], [5]. WMH could also overlay other comorbidities, representing a challenge in its identification and segmentation.

Traditionally, WMH segmentation on MRI images is a manual procedure performed by expert radiologists or annotators, it is time-consuming, and since it depends on the observer, it could result in inter, and intra-expert variability [6]. MRI technologies plus Artificial Intelligence (AI) today have

allowed the advancement of image segmentation tools that facilitate the relationship of WMH with various neurological diseases. WMH could be associated with motor and cognitive deficiencies [8]. The estimation is based on several properties such as volume, anatomical structures, spread, location [7], texture, tone, form and other features, which are useful to diagnose different brain pathologies. As it can be seen in Figure 1, WMH are not homogeneous and have fuzzy boundaries; hence, recognising their edges is a challenging task in the manual delineation of WMH ground truth segmentations [9]. Therefore, segmenting WMH is fundamental in exploring and understanding the aetiology, prognosis and progression of pathological diseases [10].

CNN architectures, such as the U-Net [11], [24] have been proposed to accomplish segmentation tasks automatically. In [12], WMH segmentation was performed using FLAIR and T1 with a Dice Similarity Coefficient (DSC) of 84%. Park et al. [25] also proposed a U-Net with multi-scale highlighting foregrounds, with similar results. Current approaches for automatic segmentation of WMH combine the strengths of known architectures for performing this task. The U-ResNet model combines a U-Net with a Residual network, using 2D images as input [12]; a model which can also classify between WMH and other brain lesions caused by strokes. Li et al. [15], winners of the 2017 MICCAI WMH Segmentation Challenge, have also proposed an architecture based on U-Nets with 19 fully Conv blocks in an ensemble configuration with other two U-Nets. Emerging approaches such as 3D-UNet [14], and V-Net [16] have extended their applicability in medical imaging segmentation of 3D images.

Recently, transformer-based architectures have been introduced to medical image segmentation [23]. Transformers are neural net architectures that improved the concept of self-attention [17]. Self-attention relate different positions of a single sequence in order to generate a representation of the

same sequence. Each layer of self-attention is composed by Queries, Keys and Values. These concepts are derived from retrieval systems. As an analogy, in a Youtube search, the search engine use the inserted query to map it against a group of keys, like titles or descriptions, that are associated to a group of candidates videos in a database. Values are the best fit result for that search. Transformers were initially used in natural language processing, however, today they are also utilised in the context of computer vision [18]. Vision transformers divide images in patches, hence they can be input as sequences in a neural network. For medical images analysis, the use of transformer architectures such as the Swin U-Nets in the context of organ segmentation [23], or Trans U-Nets for cardiac diagnosis [19] have shown promising results. This proposal aims at improving the segmentation performance of WMH using a recent vision-transformer based architecture, as compared to the predefined metrics established by the MICCAI WMH Segmentation Challenge. Additionally, this proposal aims to improve the segmentation training and inference times.

## II. METHODOLOGY

### A. The dataset

For this work, we have used the public dataset from the MICCAI WMH Challenge [20]. This dataset comprises 60 image pairs from three institutions, consisting of FLAIR and T1 images and WMH segmented masks as the ground truth. The process of image segmentation to obtain the masks was performed by two expert observers,  $O_1$  and  $O_2$ , following the **ST**andards for **R**eporting **I**nvascular changes on **n**euRoimaging (**STRIVE**) conventions [21]. Each WMH lesion was contoured by the observed  $O_1$  while a peer review over the manual delineations was conducted by the second observer  $O_2$ .

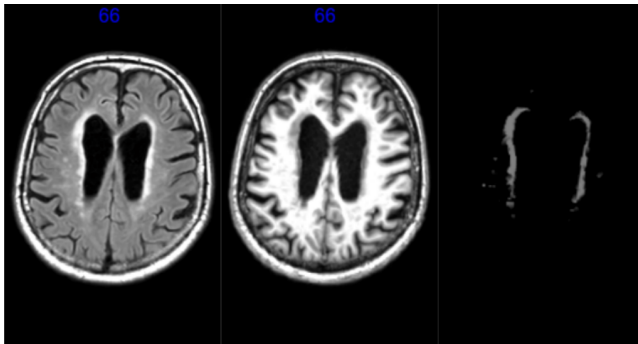


Fig. 1. An instance of the dataset is composed by a FLAIR and a T1-weighted image, and a manually segmented mask of the WMH.

More details about the dataset are illustrated in Table I

### B. Data Preparation

Images and masks from the native space were pre-processed using the python ANTs library [29] and the scipy library [30], through the following steps: A bias field correction to correct inhomogeneities produced by the magnetic field; a denoising step to remove image noise while preserving

TABLE I  
DETAILED DESCRIPTION OF WMH DATASET

| Institution    | Scanner             | # images |
|----------------|---------------------|----------|
| UMC Utrecht    | 3 T Philips Achieva | 20       |
| NUHS Singapore | 3 T Siemens TrioTim | 20       |
| VU Amsterdam   | 3 T GE Signa HDxt   | 20       |

the integrity of the remaining image information; an image smoothing with Gaussian kernel to smooth images and reduce the effects of small clusters; then an intensity normalization to reduce variability between the different scanner technologies. A masking step was necessary to fill any holes in the images; and, the intensity normalisation was performed by subtracting the mean and dividing them by the standard deviation.

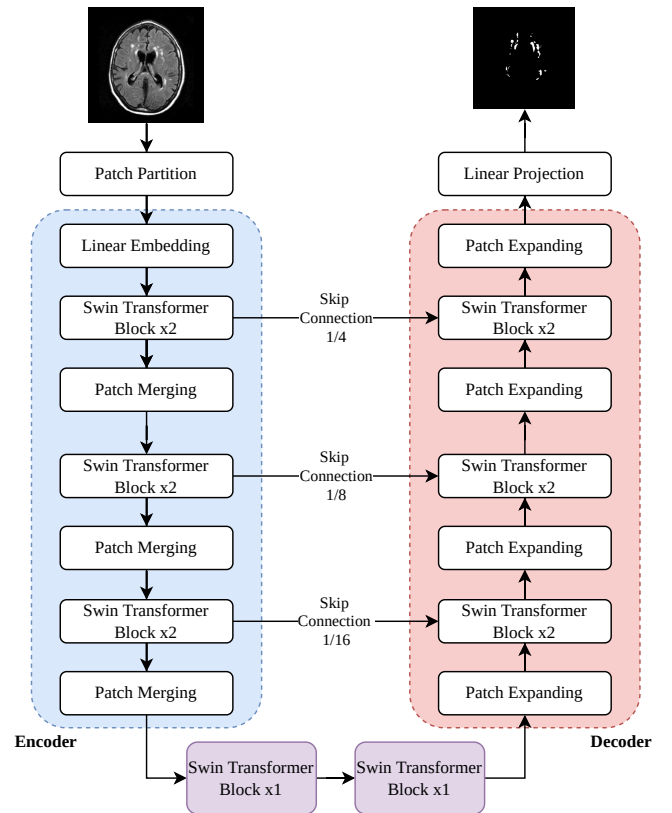


Fig. 2. The proposed Swin U-Net architecture

Next, for each 3D volume (FLAIR and T1 images and ground truth mask) of each subject, 48 - 2D axial images were generated, which were resized to 224x224. Then, a data augmentation strategy was implemented to increase the imaging data. Random flipping, angle rotation and zoom were applied to the training images to increase, not only the dataset size, but also the robustness of the model.

### C. Network Architecture

In this approach, a Swin U-Net [23] architecture has been used, as it is illustrated in Figure 2. The model comprises four main sections: An encoder, a bottleneck, a decoder and a set of skip connections. The encoder section is responsible for splitting the FLAIR image of size  $W \times H$  into non-overlapping patches of  $7 \times 7$ . Then, a downsampling procedure was applied to allow the feature extraction process to be performed by the Swin Transformer Block with the Patch Merging layer. The bottleneck section corresponds to two Swin Transformer blocks of the exact resolution and feature dimension. The decoder section portrays a symmetrical structure with the encoder. Then, the upsampling step was performed by a set of Patch Expanding layers and the Swin Transformer Blocks. Three skip connections were added in this process to ameliorate the loss of information produced by down-sampling. The architecture ends with a linear projection layer, which produces a tensor of size  $W \times H \times C$ , where  $C$  is the number of segments to be generated.

### D. Implementation details

The proposed model was built in Python 3.7 with the PyTorch 1.x framework. For testing purposes, we have fragmented the dataset using an 85 - 15 % split, where 51 images were used in training and 9 for testing.

As for the training and testing procedures, we used a computer with a 6th Gen Intel processor, 16 GB of RAM and a Nvidia 1060 GPU with 6GB of VRAM, running Ubuntu 18.04. In the training step, the model parameters were initialized using the pre-trained weights from an organ segmenter and updated using cross-entropy and Dice loss [22]. Regarding the optimizer settings, the Adam Stochastic Gradient Descent [13] was used with a learning rate set to 0.001 and a momentum to 0.9. A batch size of 24 was used in 100 epochs.

### E. Evaluation metrics

To evaluate the performance of our model, we have considered five metrics, as implemented in [24] for the WMH Segmentation challenge. Those metrics are: Dice Similarity Coefficient (DSC), Hausdorff Distance (HD), Average Volume Difference (AVD), F1 score and Recall. More extensive details about the metrics can be found in [26].

#### Dice similarity coefficient

The Dice Similarity Coefficient (DSC) was used to measure the overlap between a given ground-truth segmentation map  $G$  and another segmentation map  $P$ , which is generated by the neural network model, as expressed in Eq. (1).

$$DSC = 2 \frac{|G \cap P|}{|G| + |P|} \quad (1)$$

#### Hausdorff Distance.

Hausdorff Distance [32] measures how far two subsets of a metric space are from each other. More informally it measures the greatest of all distances from a point in one set to the closest point in the other set. This metric is calculated as follows:

$$d_H(\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}) = \max\{\sup_{x \in \mathcal{X}} d(x, \mathcal{Y}), \sup_{y \in \mathcal{Y}} d(y, \mathcal{X})\}, \quad (2)$$

where  $\mathcal{X}, \mathcal{Y}$  are non-empty sets of metric space  $(M, d)$ .

#### Average Volume Difference

The Average Volume Difference (AVD) measures the percentage difference in the volume of the manual segmentation lesions against model segmentation. More formally, given  $V_g$  and  $V_p$  the respective volumes of  $G$  and  $P$ , the Average Volume Difference is defined as:

$$AVD = \frac{|V_g - V_p|}{V_g}. \quad (3)$$

#### Recall

Recall measures the ability of a model to find all relevant cases within the data. More formally, let  $N_g$  be the number of individual lesions delineated by the ground truth  $G$ , and  $N_p$  the correct number of detected lesions comparing both  $G$  and  $P$ . Therefore, this metric can be expressed as in Eq. (4):

$$Recall = \frac{N_p}{N_g}. \quad (4)$$

#### F1 Score

The F1 score is a way to combine Recall with precision and is defined as the harmonic mean of both. More formally, given  $N_p$  as the correct number of detected lesions comparing both  $G$  and  $P$ . Let  $N_f$  be the wrong lesions in  $P$ . Therefore, the F1 score can be defined as:

$$F1 = \frac{N_p}{N_p + N_f}. \quad (5)$$

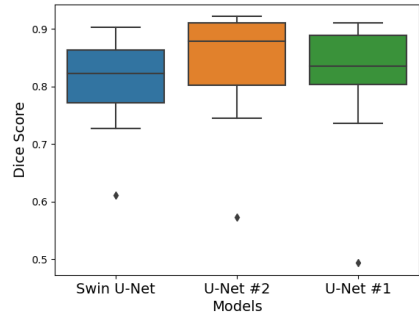
## III. RESULTS AND DISCUSSION

### A. Evaluation metrics results

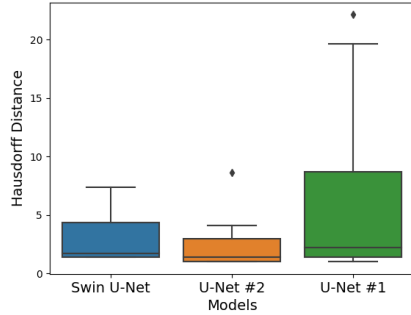
For evaluating the performance of the proposed Swin U-Net, the following two CNN U-Nets have also been implemented and their corresponding scores compared. The model identified as U-Net #1 as described in [26] and illustrated in Figure 4, was designed to handle two input channels for the FLAIR and T1 images. This network was built using 21 convolutional layers, 3 upsampling layers, and 3 pooling layers. For the first two layers we used 5x5 convolutional filters, while the rest employed 3x3 convolutional filters. A Rectified Linear Unit (RELU) [31] activation function was also applied after each convolutional layer.

The second model has been identified as U-Net #2, which was proposed in a previous work [24], with an architecture similar to the model shown in Figure 4, but with a different input; this model processes FLAIR images only as inputs. Additionally, the convolutional layers with 96 filters are discarded in the contractive path as well as the expansive path.

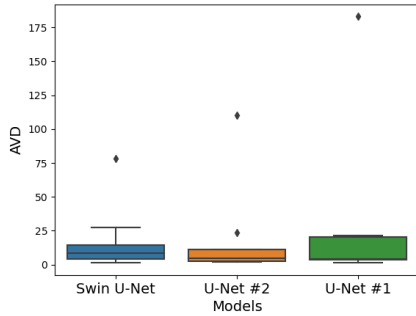
Table II shows the evaluation results performed on test data. As it can be seen in the table, the Swin U-Net proposed



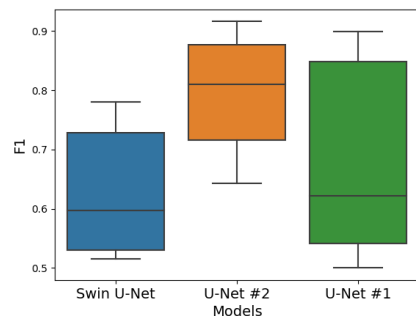
(a) Dice score coefficient



(b) Hausdorff distance



(c) Average volume difference



(d) F1

Fig. 3. Box-plot comparison of the evaluation metrics for the implemented segmentation architectures.

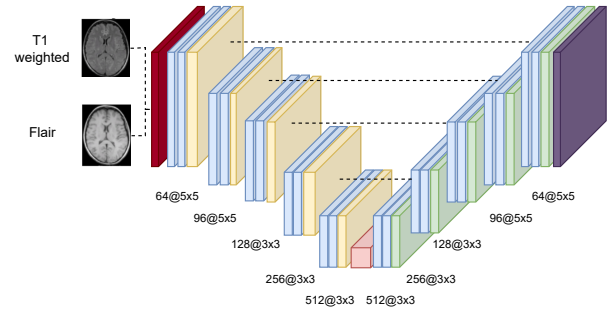


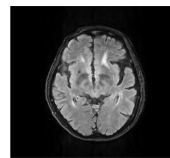
Fig. 4. Neural network architecture proposed for U-Net #1

reached better performance scores on the AVD compared to the other U-Nets architectures. As for the Dice Score and the Hausdorff distance metrics, the Swin U-Net scored similarly to the CNN U-Nets. However, comparing the Recall and F1 scores of our approach, it was lower than the other CNN U-Net based reported scores, as it can be observed in Table II.

Figure 3 shows a comparison of the performance achieved by each architecture based on each of the selected metrics. As observed in this figure, the U-Net #2 architecture performed better than the rest of models in terms of the Dice Score coefficient. A similar behaviour can be observed comparing the Hausdorff distance and Average Volume difference. However, the Swin U-Net remained competitive against U-Net #2 in the three metrics. In F1, U-Net #2 clearly outperformed the other two models.

TABLE II  
MEAN SEGMENTATION METRICS OF DIFFERENT APPROACHES IN TEST DATA ON THE MICCAI-2017 WMH DATASET

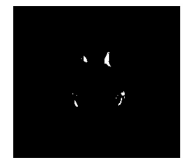
| Architecture  | DSC  | HD   | AVD   | Recall | F1   |
|---------------|------|------|-------|--------|------|
| Swin U-Net    | 0.80 | 3.16 | 16.93 | 0.72   | 0.63 |
| U-Net #1 [26] | 0.80 | 6.76 | 28.09 | 0.88   | 0.68 |
| U-Net #2 [24] | 0.83 | 2.54 | 18.47 | 0.81   | 0.80 |



(a) FLAIR image



(b) Manual WMH segmentation



(c) Output of the Swin U-Net model

Fig. 5. An instance comparison between the ground-truth mask and the automatic segmentation from the proposed model.

### B. Inference and training times

Table III shows the results of both, the training and inference times of the three models. All models were trained twice to estimate the training time, then a mean time was calculated. As for estimating the inference time, we used 10 images and followed the same procedure.

As observed, training time in the Swin U-Net model was much lower, with a mean time of two hours as compared to the other CNN U-Nets, which took around 8 hours. However, during inference, a similar outcome was reached. The inference time of the transformers method was about 2.4 seconds, as compared to 11.6 and 17.7 seconds of U-Net #1 and U-Net #2, respectively.

Reducing the training time to obtain a faster model convergence is one of the biggest challenges in Deep Learning (DL) models. Hence, a solution with noticeable performance has been proposed, showing comparable results as with other approaches, such as applying pooling layers to reduce the parameters dimensionality [27], or combining them with additional strides [28]. DL approaches with low training times can also be reached by excessive regularisation or a sudden increase of the model learning rate. However, this proposed approach shows promising results, not only with a competitive performance, but with a significant lower training time.

TABLE III  
INFERENCE AND TRAINING TIMES

| Architecture  | Training time | Inference time |
|---------------|---------------|----------------|
| Swin U-Net    | 103 minutes   | 2.38 seconds   |
| U-Net #1 [26] | 490 minutes   | 11.60 seconds  |
| U-Net #2 [24] | 523 minutes   | 17.72 seconds  |

#### IV. CONCLUSIONS

We have developed a fine-tuned Swin U-Net, a transformer-based neural network model architecture, to automatically segment FLAIR images with White Matter Hyperintensities. The resulting model showed competitive results in three out of the five metrics chosen to evaluate its performance, as compared to other two CNN U-Nets based models.

The transformer-based model has shorter inference and training times than its convolutional U-Nets counterparts. Therefore, the Swin U-Net shows promising performance in segmenting MRI, which could be implemented in medical imaging segmentation algorithms, requiring lower computational resources.

#### ACKNOWLEDGMENT

We thank the MICCAI-2017 WMH Challenge organizer Dr. Hugo J. Kuijf, for sharing with us all the datasets of images.

#### REFERENCES

- [1] Wardlaw, J.M., Smith, E.E., Biessels, G.J., Cordonnier, C., Fazekas, F., Frayne, R., et al., 2013. Neuroimaging standards for research into small vessel disease and its contribution to ageing and neurodegeneration. *Lancet Neurol.* 12 (8), 822–838. [https://doi.org/10.1016/S1474-4422\(13\)70124-8](https://doi.org/10.1016/S1474-4422(13)70124-8).
- [2] Graff-Radford J and de Arenaza-Urquijo E and Schwarz C and Brown R D and Ward C P and Mielke M M and Gunter J L, Topographic white matter hyperintensity patterns associated with alzheimer pathologies. *Stroke*, 50, A104–A104. (2019)
- [3] Phuah C-L and Chen Y and Liu Z and Yechoor N and Hwang H and Laurido-Soto O and ... Lee J.-M. (2019). White matter hyperintensity spatial pattern variations reflect distinct cerebral small vessel disease pathologies. *Stroke*, 50, A49–A49.
- [4] Kim K.W. and MacFall J.R. and Payne M.E. 2008. Classification of white matter lesions on magnetic resonance imaging in elderly persons. *Biol. Psychiatry* 64 (4), 273–280. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.biopsych.2008.03.024>.
- [5] Rachmadi M.F. and Valdés-Hernández M. and Agan M. and Di Perri C. and Komura T. Alzheimer's Disease Neuroimaging Initiative, 2018. Segmentation of white matter hyperintensities using convolutional neural networks with global spatial information in routine clinical brain MRI with none or mild vascular pathology. *Comput. Med. Imaging Graph.* 66, 28–43. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.compmedimag.2018.02.002>.
- [6] Commowick O. and Istace A. and Kain M. and Laurent B. and Leray F. and Simon M. and Ferreé, J.-C. (2018). Objective evaluation of multiple sclerosis lesion segmentation using a data management and processing infrastructure. *Scientific Reports*, 8, 1–17.
- [7] Lampe L. and Kharabian-Masouleh S. and Kynast J. and Arelín K. and Steele C. J. and Loöfller M. and Bazin P.L. (2019). Lesion location matters: The relationships between white matter hyperintensities on cognition in the healthy elderly. *Journal of Cerebral Blood Flow & Metabolism*, 39, 36–43.
- [8] Soöderlund H. and Nilsson L.-G. and Berger K. and Breteler M. M. and Dufouil C., Fuhrer, R. and de Ridder M. (2006). Cerebral changes on MRI and cognitive function: The CASCADE study. *Neurobiology of Aging*, 27, 16–23.
- [9] Haralick R. and Shapiro L. 1991. Glossary of computer vision terms. *Pattern Recognit.* 24 (1), 69–93. [https://doi.org/10.1016/0031-3203\(91\)90117-n](https://doi.org/10.1016/0031-3203(91)90117-n).
- [10] Manjoén J. V. and Coupeé P. and Raniga P. and Xia Y. and Desmond P. and Frapp J. and Salvado O. (2018). MRI white matter lesion segmentation using an ensemble of neural networks and overcomplete patch-based voting. *Computerized Medical Imaging and Graphics : the official journal of the Computerized Medical Imaging Society*, 69, 43–51. doi: 10.1016/j.compmedimag.2018.05.001
- [11] Pellegrini E. and Ballerini L. and Hernandez M. and Chappell F.M. and González-Castro V. and Anblagan D. and Danso S. and Muñoz-Maniega S. and Job D. and Pernet C. and Mair G. and MacGillivray T.J. and Trucco E. and Wardlaw J.M. 2018. Machine learning of neuroimaging for assisted diagnosis of cognitive impairment and dementia: a systematic review. *Alzheimer's Dementia (Amsterdam, Netherlands)* 10, 519–535. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.dadm.2018.07.004>.
- [12] Guerrero R. and Qin C. and Oktay O. and Bowles C. and Chen L. and Joules R., Wolz R. and Valdeés-Hernaéndez M. C. and Dickie D. A. and Wardlaw J. and Rueckert, D. (2017). White matter hyperintensity and stroke lesion segmentation and differentiation using convolutional neural networks. *NeuroImage. Clinical*, 17, 918–934. doi: 10.1016/j.nicl.2017.12.022
- [13] Kingma, D. P., & Ba, J. (2014). Adam: A method for stochastic optimization. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1412.6980*.
- [14] Feng, X., Tustison, N. J., Patel, S. H., & Meyer, C. H. (2020). Brain tumor segmentation using an ensemble of 3d u-nets and overall survival prediction using radiomic features. *Frontiers in computational neuroscience*, 14, 25.
- [15] Li, X., Zhao, Y., Jiang, J., Cheng, J., Zhu, W., Wu, Z., Jing, J., Zhang, Z., Wen, W., Sachdev, P. S., Wang, Y., Liu, T., & Li, Z. (2022). White matter hyperintensities segmentation using an ensemble of neural networks. *Human Brain Mapping*, 43( 3), 929– 939. <https://doi.org/10.1002/hbm.25695>
- [16] Hua, R., Huo, Q., Gao, Y., Sui, H., Zhang, B., Sun, Y., & Shi, F. (2020). Segmenting brain tumor using cascaded v-nets in multimodal MR Images. *Frontiers in Computational Neuroscience*, 14, 9.
- [17] Vaswani, A., Shazeer, N., Parmar, N., Uszkoreit, J., Jones, L., Gomez, A. N., & Polosukhin, I. (2017). Attention is all you need. *Advances in neural information processing systems*, 30.
- [18] Dosovitskiy, A., Beyer, L., Kolesnikov, A., Weissenborn, D., Zhai, X., Unterthiner, T., Dehghani, M., Minderer, M., Heigold, G., Gelly, S., Uszkoreit, J. & Houlsby, N. An Image is Worth 16x16 Words: Transformers for Image Recognition at Scale. *CoRR*. **abs/2010.11929** (2020), <https://arxiv.org/abs/2010.11929>
- [19] Chen, J., Lu, Y., Yu, Q., Luo, X., Adeli, E., Wang, Y., Lu, L., Yuille, A. & Zhou, Y. TransUNet: Transformers Make Strong Encoders for Medical Image Segmentation. *CoRR*. **abs/2102.04306** (2021), <https://arxiv.org/abs/2102.04306>
- [20] Kuijf, H. J., Biesbroek, J. M., De Bresser, J., Heinen, R., Andermatt, S., Bento, M., & Biessels, G. J. (2019). Standardized assessment of automatic segmentation of white matter hyperintensities and results

of the WMH segmentation challenge. *IEEE transactions on medical imaging*, 38(11), 2556-2568.

- [21] Wardlaw, J. M., Smith, E. E., Biessels, G. J., Cordonnier, C., Fazekas, F., Frayne, R., & Dichgans, M. (2013). Neuroimaging standards for research into small vessel disease and its contribution to ageing and neurodegeneration. *The Lancet Neurology*, 12(8), 822-838.
- [22] Jadon, S. (2020, October). A survey of loss functions for semantic segmentation. In *2020 IEEE Conference on Computational Intelligence in Bioinformatics and Computational Biology (CIBCB)* (pp. 1-7). IEEE.
- [23] Cao, H., Wang, Y., Chen, J., Jiang, D., Zhang, X., Tian, Q., & Wang, M. (2021). Swin-unet: Unet-like pure transformer for medical image segmentation. *arXiv preprint arXiv:2105.05537*.
- [24] Viteri, J. A., Loayza, F. R., Peláez, E., & Layedra, F. (2021). Automatic Brain White Matter Hyperintensities Segmentation using Deep Learning Techniques. In *HEALTHINF* (pp. 244-252).
- [25] Park, G., Hong, J., Duffy, B. A., Lee, J. M., & Kim, H. (2021). White matter hyperintensities segmentation using the ensemble U-Net with multi-scale highlighting foregrounds. *Neuroimage*, 237, 118140.
- [26] Li, H., Jiang, G., Wang, R., Zhang, J., Wang, Z., Zheng, W. & Menze, B. Fully Convolutional Network Ensembles for White Matter Hyperintensities Segmentation in MR Images. *CoRR*. **abs/1802.05203** (2018), <http://arxiv.org/abs/1802.05203>
- [27] Dou, Q., Chen, H., Jin, Y., Yu, L., Qin, J., & Heng, P. A. (2016, October). 3D deeply supervised network for automatic liver segmentation from CT volumes. In *International conference on medical image computing and computer-assisted intervention* (pp. 149-157). Springer, Cham.
- [28] Simonyan, K., & Zisserman, A. (2014). Very deep convolutional networks for large-scale image recognition. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1409.1556*.
- [29] Avants, B. B., Tustison, N., & Song, G. (2009). Advanced normalization tools (ANTS). *Insight j*, 2(365), 1-35.
- [30] P. Virtanen et al., "SciPy 1.0: Fundamental Algorithms for Scientific Computing in Python," *Nature Methods*, vol. 17, pp. 261–272, 2020, doi: 10.1038/s41592-019-0686-2.
- [31] Agarap, A. F. (2018). Deep learning using rectified linear units (relu). *arXiv preprint arXiv:1803.08375*.
- [32] Huttenlocher, Daniel P., Gregory A. Klanderman, and William J. Rucklidge. "Comparing images using the Hausdorff distance." *IEEE Transactions on pattern analysis and machine intelligence* 15, no. 9 (1993): 850-863.